

Energy Ledgers for Forced Harmonic ODEs

Kirchhoff power balance and an unknown component with $X = LRC$

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Abstract

Multiplying a forced harmonic LRC equation by current turns its voltage balance into a power balance. Opposite entries identify the heat and source equations needed for a complete energy ledger; their remaining terms are left open. We then add the fictional voltage term Xq''' , with $X > 0$ and its physical identity unknown. The sign of its power determines whether it supplies or absorbs energy. Exact numerical examples show both cases. Assuming only the coefficient relation $X = LRC$, we check the units and compare how component choices strengthen either contribution to the circuit's power equation. Hand-hammer and rotary impact examples connect the model to familiar mechanics, separating head movement, resistance work and the unknown cost of supplying the fictional component. The rotary discussion compares adding a third derivative with conventional coupled hammer–anvil models, distinguishing their inputs, states and predictions. A comparison with the higher-order companion explains their shared signed-work method and why the energy expressions can look different.

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1 Kirchhoff's voltage law and the missing accounts

Consider the forced harmonic equation for a series LRC circuit,

$$Lq'' + Rq' + \frac{q}{C} = f(t), \quad L > 0, \quad C > 0, \quad R \geq 0. \quad (1)$$

Here q is charge, L is inductance, R is resistance, C is capacitance, and $f(t)$ is the applied voltage. Coefficients are constant and trajectories are smooth. The equation is second order because its highest derivative is q'' ; it is linear and has degree one in that derivative.

Every term in (1) is a voltage. The component laws are $v_L = Lq''$, $v_R = Rq'$, and $v_C = q/C$. Kirchhoff's voltage law, written with the source first, is

$$f(t) - Lq'' - Rq' - \frac{q}{C} = 0. \quad (2)$$

Once the ODE is solved, we have $q(t)$ and $q'(t)$. The series current is $i = q'$. Multiplication by that current turns the voltage law into a *power law*:

$$f(t)i - Lq''i - Rq'i - \frac{qi}{C} = 0. \quad (3)$$

Each term is now voltage times current, measured in watts. The forcing contributes $+fi$ to this equation; resistor absorption contributes $-Rq'i = -Ri^2$. This is the single-loop case of the network power identity in [Tellegen \(1952\)](#).

The power sum is zero. To relate it to constant total energy, include the heat recipient and the forcing source or sink:

$$\begin{cases} 1 : & \dots + Rq'i + \dots = 0, \\ 2 : & f(t)i - Lq''i - Rq'i - qi/C = 0, \\ 3 : & -f(t)i + \dots = 0. \end{cases} \quad (4)$$

The first line belongs to the heat recipient and the third to the forcing source or sink. Their full ODEs are unknown, but one transfer term in each is already determined. The heat entry $-Rq'i$ in line 2 has the matching $+Rq'i$ in line 1. The source entry $+fi$ in line 2 has the matching $-fi$ in line 3.

This is the energy counterpart of double-entry economic accounting: a transfer debits one account and credits another. If $fi < 0$, the forcing source receives energy, and those entries reverse direction.

The cancellation identifies the transfers needed for a complete ledger. A proof that total energy is constant also requires the omitted terms, including the relevant energy rates and physical reservoir laws. We leave those blanks open here; completing them is a separate article. A prescribed $f(t)$ alone does not specify a source's available energy.

2 Does the unknown term Xq''' supply or absorb power?

2.1 The fourth line and the direction of transfer

Add one fictional component term, with constant $X > 0$:

$$Xq''' + Lq'' + Rq' + \frac{q}{C} = f(t). \quad (5)$$

Its physical identity is unknown. Its proposed voltage contribution is $v_X = Xq'''$. The power equation and its matching entries become

$$\begin{cases} 1 : & \dots + Rq'i + \dots = 0, \\ 2 : & f(t)i - Xq'''i - Lq''i - Rq'i - qi/C = 0, \\ 3 : & -f(t)i + \dots = 0, \\ 4 : & \dots + Xq'''i + \dots = 0. \end{cases} \quad (6)$$

The fourth line carries the opposite of the new contribution in line 2. Define the two signed powers explicitly:

$$P_X = Xq'''i \quad (\text{received by } X), \quad P_{X \rightarrow 2} = -Xq'''i \quad (\text{contribution to line 2}). \quad (7)$$

Table 1. Direction follows from the derivative product because $X > 0$.

Sign of $q'''i$	P_X	$P_{X \rightarrow 2}$	Role of X
Negative	Negative	Positive	Supplier
Positive	Positive	Negative	Absorber
Zero	Zero	Zero	No instantaneous transfer

For example, positive current together with negative q''' makes X a supplier. Positive current together with positive q''' makes it an absorber. A positive coefficient alone does not select either role.

Energy transfer follows from the signed power integral:

$$W_X(t_0, t_1) = \int_{t_0}^{t_1} X q'''(t) i(t) dt, \quad W_{X \rightarrow 2} = -W_X. \quad (8)$$

Positive W_X is net energy received by X ; negative W_X is net energy supplied by it. This specifies the required transfer while leaving the remaining terms of line 4 open.

2.2 Two numerical examples from exact trajectories

Take the illustrative values $L = 1 \text{ H}$, $R = 1 \Omega$, $C = 1 \text{ F}$, and $X = 1 \text{ H s}$. Put $u = t/(1 \text{ s})$. In each example choose $q(t)$ and obtain the required $f(t)$ by substitution into (5).

Supplier. Choose

$$q(t) = (1 \text{ C}) \sin u, \quad i(t) = (1 \text{ A}) \cos u, \quad q'''(t) = -(1 \text{ A/s}^2) \cos u. \quad (9)$$

The inductive and capacitive voltages cancel, as do the resistive and X voltages, so the required forcing is $f(t) = 0$. The two powers are

$$P_X = -(1 \text{ W}) \cos^2 u, \quad P_{X \rightarrow 2} = +(1 \text{ W}) \cos^2 u. \quad (10)$$

At $t = 0$, X contributes $+1 \text{ W}$ to line 2. Over the exact period $T = 2\pi \text{ s}$,

$$W_X = -(1 \text{ J}) \int_0^{2\pi} \cos^2 u du = -\pi \text{ J}. \quad (11)$$

Thus X supplies $\pi \text{ J}$ during the cycle. Here $P_X = -Ri^2$ pointwise, so the required transfer pays for the resistor's absorption. The equation identifies the required debit in the unknown account; it does not specify what physically supplies that energy.

Absorber. On $0 \leq t \leq 1 \text{ s}$, choose

$$q(t) = (1 \text{ C}) \frac{u^3}{6}, \quad i(t) = (1 \text{ A}) \frac{u^2}{2}, \quad q'''(t) = 1 \text{ A/s}^2. \quad (12)$$

Direct substitution gives

$$f(t) = (1 \text{ V}) \left(1 + u + \frac{u^2}{2} + \frac{u^3}{6} \right). \quad (13)$$

Now $P_X = (1 \text{ W}) u^2/2 > 0$ for $t > 0$, so X absorbs power. At $t = 1 \text{ s}$, its contribution to line 2 is $P_{X \rightarrow 2} = -1/2 \text{ W}$. Its received energy is

$$W_X = (1 \text{ J}) \int_0^1 \frac{u^2}{2} du = \frac{1}{6} \text{ J}. \quad (14)$$

The same positive X therefore supplies energy on the sinusoid and absorbs energy on the polynomial trajectory. Both examples are exact substitutions and evaluated power integrals.

3 Choosing L , R and C when $X = LRC$

3.1 Units and what the coefficient determines

Assume only that the numerical value of the coefficient is given by

$$X = LRC > 0. \quad (15)$$

Consequently $R > 0$ in this part. The identity and mechanism of X remain unknown. The relation determines its coefficient value, including units.

Our choice $X = LRC$ corresponds to $A_{-1,3}$ in the coefficient family $A_{r,k}$ introduced in *Third- and Higher-Order ODEs*; see Appendix A.2. With the electrical reference triple $(a, b, c) = (L, R, 1/C)$,

$$A_{-1,3} = \frac{ab}{c} = LRC.$$

Here $k = 3$ denotes the third derivative, while $r = -1$ selects this member of the family. The correspondence establishes dimensional admissibility; it does not uniquely select this coefficient or identify the unknown component.

Since $\Omega F = s$, the dimensional check is

$$[X] = [LRC] = H s = \frac{V s^2}{A}, \quad [q'''] = \frac{A}{s^2}, \quad [Xq'''] = V. \quad (16)$$

Thus the new term is a voltage, and its contribution to line 2 is

$$P_{X \rightarrow 2} = -LRC q''' i. \quad (17)$$

3.2 Maximizing the supplying or absorbing contribution

First hold the trajectory $q(t)$ fixed, including the time scale and amplitude. Then the derivative product $q''' i$ is fixed at each instant. Equation (17) gives the two design cases directly:

Table 2. At fixed trajectory, both magnitudes increase with the product LRC .

Objective at an instant	Required trajectory sign	Magnitude to maximize
Supply power to line 2	$q''' i < 0$	$LRC(-q''' i)$
Absorb power from line 2	$q''' i > 0$	$LRC(q''' i)$

Increasing any of L , R , or C strengthens the existing direction of transfer. Positive component choices cannot reverse that direction for the same trajectory. With independent positive bounds on the three components, the largest product uses all three upper bounds. Without such bounds there is no finite maximum. The signed work in (8) scales in the same way when the trajectory and interval are fixed.

For the sinusoidal family $q = Q \sin(\omega t)$, where $Q > 0$ is charge amplitude and $\omega > 0$ is angular frequency,

$$q''' = -\omega^2 i, \quad P_{X \rightarrow 2} = LRC \omega^2 i^2 \geq 0. \quad (18)$$

Every positive choice of L, R, C therefore makes X a supplier on this trajectory, except at current zeros. Absorption requires a trajectory with $q''' i > 0$, such as the polynomial in (12); changing positive coefficients alone cannot produce it on the sinusoid.

If “effect” instead means magnitude relative to the resistor’s absorption, then, at $i \neq 0$,

$$\frac{|P_{X \rightarrow 2}|}{Ri^2} = LC \left| \frac{q'''}{i} \right|. \quad (19)$$

At fixed trajectory, larger L or C increases this ratio. Larger R increases both powers equally and leaves the ratio unchanged. On a sinusoid the ratio is $LC\omega^2$.

3.3 Numerical comparison in both roles

Use the two trajectories from Part 2. Compare the supplier at $t = 0$ and the absorber at $t = 1$ s. For each component choice, recompute $f(t)$ from (5) so that the specified trajectory is retained.

Table 3. Exact signed contributions $P_{X \rightarrow 2}$ of the unknown term.

(L, R, C) in (H, Ω , F)	X (H s)	Supplier (W)	Absorber (W)
(1, 1, 1)	1	+1	−1/2
(1, 2, 1)	2	+2	−1
(2, 2, 2)	8	+8	−4

For example, with independent bounds $1 \text{ H} \leq L \leq 2 \text{ H}$, $1 \Omega \leq R \leq 2 \Omega$, and $1 \text{ F} \leq C \leq 2 \text{ F}$, the last choice maximizes both directional magnitudes for the specified trajectories. It supplies 8 W at the supplier instant and absorbs 4 W at the absorber instant. Over their respective intervals, the same exact integrals give 8π J supplied during the sinusoidal cycle and $4/3$ J absorbed during the polynomial interval.

These comparisons hold the motion fixed and adjust the forcing accordingly. If $f(t)$ and the initial conditions are held fixed instead, changing L, R, C also changes $q(t)$; maximizing the product alone then does not determine the maximum effect. The coefficient relation specifies the power required of X on a chosen motion. Its physical identity and the remaining terms of line 4 are still open.

This comparison asks what input is needed for a chosen motion. It does not by itself show that a component change improves the response produced by the same input.

4 A hammer, a nail and the feel of a blow

4.1 Putting familiar differences into the equation

Think of tapping a nail with a small hammer, then using a heavier head. Or of striking a nail in a firmly backed board, then trying a board that bends under the blow. The weight in the hand, the resistance of the wood and the movement of the backing correspond to different parts of our ODE.

Let $x(t)$ be forward movement of the hammer face and nail head during a smooth interval in which they remain in contact, and let $v = x'$. Measure x relative to a fixed support reference. Use effective moving mass $m > 0$, dominated by the hammer head, effective resistance $b > 0$, and elastic stiffness $k > 0$. Unresolved motion inside the fictional component is outside this one-coordinate description. We define the resisting forces as bv and kx , giving

$$mx'' + bx' + kx = F(t), \quad (L, R, C) \longleftrightarrow (m, b, 1/k). \quad (20)$$

Here $F(t)$ is any continued external driving force along the stroke. The electrical capacitance corresponds to mechanical *compliance*, $1/k$: a larger compliance means a more yielding setup.

Table 4. These are model associations; a real change can affect several coefficients.

Familiar change	Main place in the model
A heavier hammer head	Larger m , corresponding to L .
Wood gripping the nail more strongly	Larger effective b , corresponding to R .
Firm backing instead of a bending board	Larger effective k , hence smaller $C = 1/k$.
Different nail geometry or contact compliance	Changes in k , and possibly b as well.

The velocity-proportional law bv is an idealized resistance for this interval. Actual nail friction is not specified by a single constant b . Likewise, x includes elastic movement of the wood and backing; it is not automatically the nail's permanent penetration depth.

Assume that the fictional component now exists inside the hammer and acts at its working face. Its proposed effective force law gives

$$X_h x''' + mx'' + bx' + kx = F(t), \quad X_h = \frac{mb}{k} > 0. \quad (21)$$

Since $[b] = \text{Ns/m}$ and $[k] = \text{N/m}$, $[X_h] = \text{kg s}$ and $X_h x'''$ is a force. Multiplication by v gives the familiar power equation,

$$Fv - X_h x''' v - mx'' v - bv^2 - kxv = 0. \quad (22)$$

The component receives $P_{X_h} = X_h x''' v$, with the opposite entry here. It supplies when $x''' v < 0$ and absorbs when $x''' v > 0$. How a component inside the hammer produces this force, carries its reaction and exchanges the required energy remains unspecified.

4.2 The same incoming speed, with different heads, wood and backing

Hold the incoming speed V fixed. Preparing the moving mass from rest requires

$$W_{\text{in}} = \int mv \frac{dv}{dt} dt = \int_0^V mv dv = \frac{1}{2}mV^2. \quad (23)$$

A heavier head at the same speed therefore requires more preparation work. If preparation work is fixed instead, its speed must be lower.

Take a horizontal stroke with no continued hand force, so $F = 0$. Start at $x(0) = 0$, $v(0) = V$, and give the fictional model the additional initial condition $x''(0) = 0$, part of its assumed preparation. Put $\omega = \sqrt{k/m}$. An exact solution is

$$x(t) = \frac{V}{\omega} \sin(\omega t), \quad 0 \leq t \leq t_* := \frac{\pi}{2\omega}, \quad x_* := x(t_*) = \frac{V}{\omega}. \quad (24)$$

Direct substitution gives $mx'' + kx = 0$ and $X_h x''' + bv = 0$. The head moves forward and slows to its first stop. Throughout this motion, the fictional component supplies exactly the power taken by the resistance. The signed transfers are

$$W_{X_h} = \int_0^{t_*} X_h x''' v dt = - \int_0^{t_*} bv^2 dt = - \frac{\pi b V^2}{4\omega} = -W_b. \quad (25)$$

Elastic loading separately receives $\int_0^{t_*} kxv dt = kx_*^2/2 = mV^2/2$. The prepared motion pays for this loading; X_h pays the resistance from its unknown account.

Choose illustrative reference values

$$m = \frac{1}{2} \text{ kg}, \quad b = 1000 \text{ N s/m}, \quad k = 500000 \text{ N/m}, \quad V = 2 \text{ m/s}.$$

Here $\omega = 1000 \text{ s}^{-1}$ and $t_* = \pi/2 \text{ ms}$. Change one coefficient at a time, keeping V and $F = 0$. Recompute X_h , the motion and its stopping time for every case.

Table 5. Exact model results. kx_* is elastic force at the stop, not peak contact force.

Case	X_h (kg s)	x_* (mm)	kx_* (N)	X_h supplies (J)
Reference	1/1000	2	1000	π
Twice the head mass	1/500	$2\sqrt{2}$	$1000\sqrt{2}$	$\sqrt{2}\pi$
Twice the resistance b	1/500	2	1000	2π
Half the stiffness k	1/500	$2\sqrt{2}$	$500\sqrt{2}$	$\sqrt{2}\pi$

Heavier head. Preparation work rises from 1 J to 2 J. The greater travel and elastic force accompany that larger input, as one expects when swinging more mass at the same speed.

More wood resistance. Travel stays unchanged only because X_h supplies 2π J instead of π J. All the extra supply pays for the extra resistance.

Softer backing. Greater travel comes with less elastic force at the stop. The extra movement may be bending of the board; it does not establish better nail driving.

4.3 Does this make sense in the real world?

The ordinary model gives a useful comparison. With the reference m, b, k , the same incoming speed and $F = 0$, its exact solution is

$$x_0(t) = (2 \text{ mm}) ue^{-u}, \quad u = \frac{t}{1 \text{ ms}}. \quad (26)$$

It satisfies (20) directly and stops first at $t = 1 \text{ ms}$, after $2/e \text{ mm}$ of head movement. The ordinary equation fixes the initial acceleration at $-bV/m$, whereas our third-order example uses the separately specified value $x''(0) = 0$. The fictional model reaches 2 mm instead. Its larger loading movement is accompanied by $\pi \text{ J}$ supplied by X_h , in addition to the 1 J initially put into the moving mass. The extra supply is a requirement of this comparison; we have not identified its source.

Mass, resistance and compliance do capture familiar differences between blows. Hammer mass, impact speed, nail geometry, grain direction and backing material were studied directly by Salem et al. (1975). A heavier head at equal speed carries more prepared work; a yielding backing lets the workpiece move; greater resistance demands more work for the same motion. Nail shape and wood grain also affect fiber damage and splitting (Rammer, 2021). A change of nail or wood can therefore change more than one model coefficient.

Driving a nail also leaves a permanent change. A linear spring describes elastic resistance, while a driven nail can remain at its new depth. To predict that depth, the model needs a law for irreversible penetration and a distinction between nail motion through wood and motion of the wood itself. Pressing tests distinguish resistance at the advancing nail point from friction along the shank (Arima et al., 1989). Some resistance work is part of making the hole and setting the nail; it cannot all be treated as avoidable waste. The present calculation describes a loading interval, ending before rebound or release.

There is another consequence of $X_h = mb/k$: moving the same hammer to different wood or a different backing changes its predicted coefficient. Here the relation is an assumption about the *coupled setup*. An internal component would need a response that depends on that load; its existence alone does not explain such a response. The familiar feel of ordinary hammering does not establish the proposed third-derivative force law.

For the practical question, compare reaching the same permanent nail depth with less total supplied work. Include the swing and whatever prepares or replenishes X_h , with comparable initial and final component states. Increased fictional supply alone does not establish reduced effort. The model makes the mass, resistance and backing effects understandable, and calculates the energy that X_h would have to exchange. Whether an actual component can provide that exchange economically remains open because we still do not know what X_h is.

5 The same equation in a rotary impact driver

5.1 A simplified output model

The hand hammer gives us the feel of mass, resistance and backing. Now replace forward movement with rotation, and hand preparation with a motor. A rotary impact driver uses a motor to accelerate a hammer, which transfers torque to an anvil and then to the bit and fastener. Established hammer models distinguish acceleration, contact and release, with joint stiffness and losses affecting the blow (Wettstein et al., 2021). Here we retain one smooth loading interval within a blow.

Let $\theta(t)$ be the output's angular displacement from a fixed local reference, and $\Omega = \theta'$ its angular velocity. Use constant output inertia $J > 0$, resisting coefficient $b > 0$, and torsional stiffness $k > 0$. The resisting torques are $b\Omega$ and $k\theta$. The hammer applies a prescribed torque $\tau_h(t)$; its inertia is outside this output model and is not included in J . Torque balance gives

$$J\theta'' + b\theta' + k\theta = \tau_h(t). \quad (27)$$

This is the original harmonic ODE under the correspondence

$$q \leftrightarrow \theta, \quad i \leftrightarrow \Omega, \quad L \leftrightarrow J, \quad R \leftrightarrow b, \quad C \leftrightarrow 1/k, \quad f \leftrightarrow \tau_h.$$

The spring and damping laws define a local ideal model. Contact switching, successive blows and permanent fastener advance require additional laws.

The companion *Third- and Higher-Order ODEs* (Nilre and Herlin, 2026) treats a coupled hammer–anvil assembly. The model comparison below explains how that description differs from our output equation.

Now assume that the fictional component exists somewhere inside the tool and acts at this output. Write its rotational coefficient as X_r :

$$X_r\theta''' + J\theta'' + b\theta' + k\theta = \tau_h(t), \quad X_r = \frac{Jb}{k} > 0. \quad (28)$$

The relation is the rotational counterpart of $X = LRC$. Since b/k has units of seconds,

$$[X_r] = \text{N m s}^3/\text{rad} = \text{kg m}^2 \text{ s}, \quad [X_r\theta'''] = \text{N m},$$

where radians are dimensionless in SI. Its coefficient is known; its physical mechanism remains unspecified.

Multiplication by Ω gives the same source-first power equation:

$$\tau_h\Omega - X_r\theta'''\Omega - J\theta''\Omega - b\Omega^2 - k\theta\Omega = 0. \quad (29)$$

The component receives $P_{X_r} = X_r\theta'''\Omega$, with the opposite entry in this equation. It supplies power when $\theta'''\Omega < 0$ and absorbs when $\theta'''\Omega > 0$. The heat and hammer accounts likewise receive $+b\Omega^2$ and $-\tau_h\Omega$, as in the earlier ledger.

5.2 Comparing the work on the same motion

Impact-wrench energy accounting distinguishes work at the joint, elastic deformation of the output shaft and frictional losses (Wallace, 2015). Our comparison keeps the boundary at the output defined above.

Hold the trajectory and interval fixed and calculate the required hammer torque separately for the ordinary model and the model containing X_r . Call these torques τ_0 and τ_X . Their difference is $\tau_X - \tau_0 = X_r \theta'''$. Integrating their signed port powers gives

$$W_h^{(X)} - W_h^{(0)} = \int_{t_0}^{t_1} (\tau_X - \tau_0) \Omega dt = \int_{t_0}^{t_1} X_r \theta''' \Omega dt = W_{X_r}, \quad (30)$$

where each W_h is work delivered by the hammer to the output. Thus supplying reduces the required hammer work by exactly the work supplied by X_r . Absorbing increases it on the same motion; absorption can instead serve a braking objective when the derivative product has the required sign. Returning that absorbed energy later needs a component law.

For a concrete comparison, choose the smooth loading segment

$$\theta(t) = \Theta \sin(\nu t), \quad 0 \leq t \leq \frac{\pi}{2\nu}, \quad \Theta > 0, \quad \nu > 0. \quad (31)$$

The angle increases while the output slows to rest. All comparisons start with the same nonzero angular velocity $\Theta \nu$ and end at the same angle Θ . Since $\theta''' = -\nu^2 \Omega$, X_r supplies throughout the moving part. Its signed work and the heat transfer are

$$W_{X_r} = \int_0^{\pi/(2\nu)} X_r \theta''' \Omega dt = -\frac{\pi}{4} X_r \Theta^2 \nu^3, \quad (32)$$

$$W_b = \int_0^{\pi/(2\nu)} b \Omega^2 dt = \frac{\pi}{4} b \Theta^2 \nu. \quad (33)$$

On this trajectory, the required torque is also obtained by an ordinary model with reduced damping

$$b_{\text{eff}} = b - X_r \nu^2 = b \left(1 - \frac{J \nu^2}{k} \right), \quad b_{\text{eff}} \geq 0. \quad (34)$$

Indeed, $X_r \theta''' + b \Omega = b_{\text{eff}} \Omega$. This equality concerns the chosen motion. In the fictional model the original heat transfer remains and X_r supplies the difference. In the ordinary model less work becomes heat.

Take the following exact illustrative values; they are not measurements of a driver:

$$J = 10^{-4} \text{ kg m}^2, \quad b = \frac{1}{50} \text{ N m s/rad}, \quad k = 1000 \text{ N m/rad}, \quad \Theta = \frac{1}{10} \text{ rad}, \quad \nu = 1000 \text{ s}^{-1}.$$

Then $X_r = 2 \cdot 10^{-9} \text{ kg m}^2 \text{ s}$, $J \nu^2 / k = 1/10$, and $b_{\text{eff}} = 9/500 \text{ N m s/rad}$.

Table 6. Exact transfers; ΔW_h is the change in hammer work relative to the first model.

Model on the same motion	Heat (J)	W_{X_r} (J)	ΔW_h (J)
Ordinary, original b	$\pi/20$	0	0
Fictional, original b	$\pi/20$	$-\pi/200$	$-\pi/200$
Ordinary, b reduced by 10%	$9\pi/200$	0	$-\pi/200$

5.3 Comparing the third-order ODE with conventional impact models

Adding $X_r\theta'''$ changes the mathematical description of the output. With prescribed hammer torque, the ordinary equation needs an initial angle and angular velocity. The proposed equation also needs an initial angular acceleration. It is a **third-order linear ODE**: the extra derivative adds one state to the description, while $X_r = Jb/k$ fixes its coefficient. Both equations still take the hammer torque as a given function; neither determines the hammer–anvil contact from its own mechanics.

A conventional model can instead resolve the hammer, anvil and deforming contact separately. Such component models describe how their interaction produces a torque pulse (Wettstein et al., 2021). For a simple example, keep one smooth interval of active contact. Let θ_h and θ_a be hammer and anvil angles, with the clearance absorbed into their reference positions, and put $\delta = \theta_h - \theta_a$. Take positive constant inertias J_h, J_a , contact stiffness and damping k_c, d_c , and joint stiffness and damping k_j, d_j . With applied hammer drive torque $u(t)$, write

$$\begin{aligned} J_h\theta_h'' &= u - \tau_c, & J_a\theta_a'' &= \tau_c - \tau_j, \\ \tau_c &= k_c\delta + d_c\delta', & \tau_j &= k_j\theta_a + d_j\theta_a'. \end{aligned} \quad (35)$$

The anvil equation is our ordinary output equation with $\theta = \theta_a, J = J_a, b = d_j, k = k_j$ and $\tau_h = \tau_c$. The additional hammer equation and contact law determine that torque from the interacting motions. Their initial data are the two angles and two angular velocities.

These two second-order equations generally become one fourth-order equation when an internal angle is eliminated. Eliminating the hammer angle gives an output equation involving u and u' ; the *Third- and Higher-Order ODEs companion* shows the complementary hammer-angle equation, whose forcing also contains u'' . Higher derivatives can therefore represent ordinary internal motion that has been removed algebraically. The resulting coefficients and forcing follow together from the component laws. They do not in general reduce to adding only $(Jb/k)\theta'''$ to our output equation.

Other conventional descriptions answer different questions. An instantaneous impact law relates velocities before and after a blow, leaving its torque waveform unresolved. A compliant contact model resolves motion during the blow; a nonlinear contact law can make that response depend on deformation amplitude. Engagement, release and friction need their own rules. Adding a constant-coefficient third derivative does not by itself supply those rules (Nilre and Herlin, 2026).

The proposed third-order equation is compact and makes its assumed extra torque explicit. Using it as a reduced description of an ordinary driver would require a derivation or identification on a stated operating range, including the input and initial conditions. Here it remains the model of the assumed unknown component. Its additional state alone establishes no improvement in prediction.

Section 5.2 gives one exact comparison: on the prescribed sine motion, the extra term has the same torque effect as changing b to $b - X_r v^2$. The required input is adjusted in each case. At another frequency that damping value changes, so this agreement does not establish equivalence for general impacts. Comparing predictive models instead requires the same physical input, compatible preparation and the same observed motion, without readjusting the input to impose the answer.

Thus the extra term provides a simple candidate description of output dynamics. A resolved conventional model additionally explains how the interacting bodies generate its input. The work comparison remains at the output; whole-tool cost also includes hammer preparation and whatever supplies or replenishes X_r . Part 6 addresses the related energy distinction: this paper assigns $X_r\theta'''$ an assumed component torque, while elimination alone does not assign a new physical component or energy account.

6 The same method of energy accounting

6.1 Start with the model, then calculate the work

This paper and *Third- and Higher-Order ODEs* use the same energy-accounting method. First specify the model and motion. Then multiply each voltage by its current, force by its velocity, or torque by its angular velocity. Integrating each signed power over the chosen interval gives its work. Positive received work means absorption; negative received work means supply. The same transfer enters the receiving and supplying accounts with opposite signs.

Here the procedure appears in numbered ledger lines. The companion often presents it through component equations, work integrals and changes in stored energy. Both require the relevant accounts for a complete physical balance: algebraic cancellation cannot supply a missing component law. Energy accounting follows the model assumptions; it does not choose $X = LRC$ or identify the unknown component.

6.2 The same work in two forms

For constant $X > 0$, our component's signed received work has two equivalent forms:

$$\begin{aligned} W_X(t_0, t_1) &= \int_{t_0}^{t_1} Xq'''q' dt \\ &= X[q''q']_{t_0}^{t_1} - X \int_{t_0}^{t_1} (q'')^2 dt. \end{aligned} \quad (36)$$

The first line integrates the assumed voltage–current product. The second follows by integration by parts, using $(q''q')' = q'''q' + (q'')^2$. It calculates exactly the same work. The companion uses this reasoning at higher derivative orders.

Over a complete period of smooth periodic motion, the endpoint product repeats and $W_X \leq 0$, consistent with Part 2's sinusoidal supplier. On another interval the endpoint contribution can give $W_X > 0$, as in the polynomial absorber. The two terms in the rearranged expression belong together. Neither the endpoint term alone identifies a physical store nor the squared-derivative integral alone identifies heat. Those assignments require component information.

6.3 Why the descriptions can look different

Here we assume that Xq''' is the voltage of a component carrying current q' . That assumption makes $Xq'''q'$ its received power. Calling it a supplier describes a specified transfer while leaving its internal account open.

In the companion's impact model, higher derivatives arise when internal coordinates are eliminated. A resulting term can combine several ordinary components' effects without identifying a separate component or energy-transfer connection. Physical work is still calculated from the original torques and their associated angular velocities.

Work through a component connection, change in physical storage, and an expression obtained by rearranging an equation describe different quantities; their signs need not agree. Comparison requires the same system boundary, interval, sign convention and physical equation scale. The companion's additional component detail allows further accounts to be evaluated.

This paper uses the same work-calculation method. The assumed extra component still needs a physical identity and the missing parts of its energy account.

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